THE PATTERN OF CREATION IN GENESIS, CHAPTER 1

C. F. WHITLEY

THE study of the cosmogony of Genesis, chapter 1, is commonly limited to a discussion of the similarities which are thought to obtain between it and Babylonian conceptions of creation. Yet it is not improbable that the author of Genesis 1 was also acquainted with the distinctive features of other Near Eastern cosmogonies. In examining the pattern of creation which he presents we notice that he starts from the conception of a preexistent chaos[1] (*tohu wabohu*) of darkness and deep (*tehom*). The first step in the direction of an ordered cosmos was the creation of light, with the consequent distinction of day and night. Then followed the separating of the primeval waters into upper and lower strata by the intervention of the firmament of heaven. The lower waters, concentrating into one mass, became the sea and at length dry land or earth appeared. The earth in turn brought forth vegetation. Next in order of creation were the luminaries, sun, moon and stars. Aquatic creatures and birds then appeared, after which we read of the development of land animals. Finally, the human species, male and female, came into being (Gen. I:1–27).

In order to estimate the extent to which this account of creation may be said to reflect Babylonian influence we will consider the Babylonian conception of creation as it appears in the document known as *Enūma elish*. This poem consists of seven tablets which, though written at varying dates between the sixth and tenth centuries B.C., contain material which is considerably older.[2] The primary object of the poem was the celebration of the exploits by which Marduk attained to the supreme place in the Babylonian pantheon,[3] but the purpose of the author could not be achieved without expressing some view of the cosmogonic process, as the following extracts show:

> When on high the heaven had not been named,
> Firm ground below had not been called by name.
> Naught but primeval Apsu, their begetter,
> (And) Mummu-Tiamat,[4] she who bore them all,
> Their waters commingling as a single body;
> No reed had been matted, no marsh land had appeared,
> When no gods whatever had been brought into being
> Uncalled by name, their destinies undetermined—
> Then it was that the gods were formed. . . . (Tablet I, ll. 1–9).[5]

[1] Most moderns now read Gen. I:1–2 as the Chicago translation: "When God began to create the heavens and the earth, the earth being a desolate waste, with darkness covering the abyss and the spirit of God hovering over the water, then God said. . . ." Cf. here W. A. Irwin, *The Old Testament: Keystone of Human Culture* (New York, 1952), p. 69; H. Wheeler Robinson, *Inspiration and Revelation in the Old Testament* (Oxford, 1950), p. 19.

[2] See A. Heidel, *The Babylonian Genesis* (Chicago, 1942), pp. 4–6.

[3] *Ibid.*, p. 3.

[4] Heidel translates here, "Mother-Tiamat," *op. cit.*, p. 8. T. Jacobson thinks that it represents "cloud banks and mist," *The Intellectual Adventure of Ancient Man* (Chicago, 1946), p. 170.

[5] As translated by E. A. Speiser, in *Ancient Near Eastern Texts*, ed. by J. B. Pritchard (Princeton, 1950), pp. 60*a*–61*b*.

Various gods then emerge, and, becoming alarmed at the potentialities of the chaos monster, Tiamat, they appointed Marduk as their champion. Engaging Tiamat in battle,

> He split her like a shellfish into two parts:
> Half of her he set up and ceiled as Sky,
> Pulled down the bar and posted guards,
> He bade them to allow not her waters to escape.
> He crossed the heavens and surveyed its regions.
> He squared Apsu's quarter, the abode of Nudimmud,
> As the lord measured the dimensions of Apsu,
> The Great Abode, its likeness, he fixed as Esharra,
> The Great Abode, Esharra, which he made as the firmament.
> Anu, Enlil and Ea he made occupy their places (IV, ll. 137–46).[6]

The sky is thus formed out of the upper disk-like part of Tiamat's body, and the waters are inclosed within the firmament by the aid of guards. The reference to the abode of Nudimmud, the earth god,[7] indicates the appearance of land, while its existence is further assumed by mention of Esharra, a poetical name for earth.[8]

We then read of the appearance of the luminaries and of their function in determining the seasons of the year:

> He constructed stations for the great gods,
> Fixing their astral likeness as constellations.
> He determined the year by designating zones:
> He set up three constellations for each of the twelve months.
> After determining the days of the year (by means) of (heavenly) figures,
> He founded the station of Nebiru[9] to determine their (heavenly) bands.
> That none might transgress or fall short . . .
> In her belly he established the zenith.
> The Moon he caused to shine, the night (to him) entrusting.
> He appointed him a creature of the night to signify the days:
> "Monthly, without cease form designs with a crown.
> At the month's very start, rising over the land,
> Thou shalt have luminous horns to signify six days . . .
> At full moon stand in opposition in mid-month.
> When the sun (overtakes) thee at the base of heaven,
> Diminish (thy crown) and retrogress in light". . . . (V, ll. 1–20).[10]

The tablet is broken here, and the missing lines may have contained some account of the appearance of vegetation on earth, although this is questioned by Heidel.[11] The beginning of tablet VII however contains a reference to Marduk as

> The bestower of cultivation, who established seed-land;
> Creator of grain and herbs who causes (vegetation to sprout).[12]

[6] *Ibid.*, p. 67*b*.

[7] *Ibid.*, p. 61*a*, n. 7.

[8] Heidel, *op. cit.*, p. 32, n. 93.

[9] Jupiter, Heidel, *op. cit.*, p. 33, n. 97.

[10] *Ancient Near Eastern Texts*, pp. 67*b*–68*a*.

[11] *Op. cit.*, p. 98.

[12] *Ancient Near Eastern Texts*, p. 70*a*.

In tablet VI we find an account of the creation of man:

> When Marduk hears the words of the gods,
> His heart prompts (him) to fashion artful works.
> Opening his mouth he addresses Ea
> To impart the plan he had conceived in his heart:
> "Blood I will mass and cause bones to be.
> I will establish a savage, 'man' shall be his name,
> Verily, savage-man I will create". . . . (VI, ll. 1–7).[13]

Ea then suggested that man should be fashioned from the god who was guilty of first enraging Tiamat. Marduk accordingly "summoned the great gods to assembly," and Kingu was found guilty:

> They bound him, holding him before Ea.
> They imposed upon him his guilt and severed his blood (vessels).
> Out of his blood they fashioned mankind.
> He imposed the service and let free the gods,
> After Ea, the Wise, had created mankind,
> Had imposed upon it the service of the gods. . . . (VI, ll. 31–36).[14]

In the conception of creation depicted in this poem the male, Apsu, and the female, Tiamat, represent the first principles of life. Marduk then slays Tiamat and with the upper part of her body he forms the firmament of heaven. The earth then comes into being and is followed by the formation of the luminaries. Then, possibly, vegetation emerges and lastly man.

A comparison of this document with Genesis 1 suggests certain analogies. In both there is the general conception of a primeval watery chaos. This is called Tiamat in the Babylonian account and Tehom without the article in Hebrew suggesting that the term is personified. Hence most scholars regard the Hebrew form as deriving ultimately from the Babylonian,[15] although Heidel argues that both words may be traced to a common Semitic source.[16] A further parallel is the formation of the heavens by the cleaving of the watery chaos and its division into upper and lower strata resulting in the appearance of the firmament of heaven in the intervening space. Another point of resemblance is the creation of the luminaries and their function in determining and measuring the days and seasons, although, as Marduk was himself a solar deity, the creation of the sun is implied rather than stated in *Enūma elish*. The formation of the earth is mentioned in both accounts, but in Genesis the sea appears first. It will also be observed that, even if the creation of vegetation were mentioned in the missing lines of Tablet V of *Enūma elish*, its appearance would have been after the luminaries whereas in Genesis it appears before the luminaries. The creation of mankind is the last fiat of God in the Hebrew account and this also seems to have been the last creative act of Marduk. While, however, resemblances are discernible between these two accounts of creation it will be noticed that the Hebrew version is presented more fully and in greater detail. In fact Genesis 1 may be said to outline twice as many processes of creation as *Enūma elish*, while there is no close parallel in the sequence of the crea-

[13] *Ibid.*, p. 68*a*.

[14] *Ibid.*, p. 68*b*.

[15] S. H. Hooke, *In the Beginning* ("Clarendon Bible," VII (Oxford, 1947), pp. 34–35. Referring to Tehom J. Morgenstern remarked: "Unquestionably . . . the word is derived from the Babylonian Tiamat," *AJSL*, XXXVI (April 1920), 197.

[16] *Op. cit.*, p. 85.

tion of the elements common to both cosmogonies.

When, however, we examine the cosmogony of the Greek writer Hesiod we notice that in certain respects it bears a closer resemblance than *Enūma elish* to the conception of creation in Genesis 1. As *Enūma elish*, although containing cosmogonic material, is primarily a hymn in honor of Marduk, so the *Theogony* is in reality a hymn to Zeus prefaced by lines describing the origin of the universe. Thus we read:

> At the first Chaos came to be, but next wide bosomed Earth. . . . From Chaos came forth Erebus and black Night; but of Night were born Aether and Day, whom she conceived and bare from union . . . with Erebus. And Earth first bare starry Heaven, equal to herself, to cover her on every side, and to be an ever-sure abiding-place for the blessed gods. And she brought forth long Hills, graceful haunts of the goddess-Nymphs who dwell amongst the glens of the hills. She bare also the fruitless deep with his raging swell, Pontus. . . .[17]

For Hesiod chaos meant the yawning gap which appeared with the separation of the upper and lower spheres of the universe: hence the simultaneous appearance of heaven and earth even in rudimentary form.[18] From the darkness of night is born the bright light of day. We are thus reminded of the dark watery chaos of Genesis 1 and of the light which followed. The starry heavens then appear and correspond to the firmament which comes into being in the biblical account after the creation of light. According to Hesiod earth bore the hills, the woods, and the sea. Similarly in Genesis 1, after the appearance of the sea and dry land, the earth produces vegetation. The order of events in Hesiod's cosmogony are therefore closer to the scheme of Genesis 1 than may at first appear.[19] But having outlined the formation of the physical universe Hesiod's purpose is served and we hear nothing of the appearance of living creatures and man which form the final sequence of the Hebrew account of creation.

In this respect however another and later Greek cosmogony is of particular interest. This is the system of Anaximander of Miletus, who lived in the early sixth century B.C. Thales, his predecessor, maintained that water was the material cause of all things,[20] but according to Theophrastus,

> Anaximander of Miletos, son of Praxiades, a fellow-citizen and associate of Thales, said that the material cause and first element of things was the Infinite, he being the first to introduce this name for the material cause. He says it is neither water nor any other of the so-called elements, but a substance different from them which is infinite, from which arise all the heavens and the worlds within them.[21]

Anaximander regarded this infinite as "eternal and ageless" and as encompassing "all the worlds."[22] The process whereby the ordered world arose was conceived as of "the separating out of substantives with opposite qualities, such as hot and cold, from this indiscriminate mass described as the Infinite or the Boundless."[23] Theophrastus continues his description of Anaximander's system thus:

> He says that something capable of begetting hot and cold was separated off from the eternal at the origin of this world. From this arose a sphere of flame which grew round the air

[17] *Theogony*, ll. 116–32, "Loeb Classical Library" (*The Homeric Hymns and Homerica*, 1920), as translated by H. G. Evelyn-White, pp. 87–89.

[18] Cf. F. M. Cornford, *Principium Sapientiae, the Origins of Greek Philosophical Thought*, ed. by W. K. C. Guthrie (Cambridge, 1952), pp. 194–95.

[19] *Ibid.*, p. 199.

[20] As presented and translated by John Burnet, *Early Greek Philosophy*, 2d ed. (London, 1908), p. 48.

[21] *Ibid.*, p. 54.

[22] *Ibid.*

[23] Cf. Cornford, *op. cit.*, pp. 160 f.

encircling the earth, as the bark grows round a tree. When this was torn off and enclosed in certain rings, the sun, moon, and stars came into existence.[24]

This differentiation of a part of the boundless into hot and cold ultimately gave rise to water and earth,[25] and then we hear of the appearance of the sun, moon, and stars. Here it will be recalled that, after the emergence of the earth and the evolution of vegetation in Genesis 1, the sun, moon, and stars came into being and in that order. Of greater consequence for our present study however is Anaximander's conception of the emergence of living things:

Living creatures arose from the moist element as it was evaporated by the sun. . . . The first animals were produced in the moisture, each enclosed in a prickly bark. As they advanced in age, they came out upon the drier part.[26]

These opinions of Anaximander seem to have become embodied in an Ionian system, attributed to Democritus, which gained currency in the fifth century B.C.[22] Diodorus later summarizes the system thus:

The sun's heat then acted on the moisture and produced bubble-like membranes, such as may now be seen formed in marshy places. Life was generated in these, fed at first by the surrounding mist at night, and in the day time solidified by the heat. Out of these membranes, when they burst, all sorts of living creatures sprang: birds, the creeping things of the earth, and the fishes. Later, when the earth had become more solid, it could no longer give birth to the larger creatures, but all things were generated by the union of the sexes.[28]

In this system and that of Anaximander the first signs of life emerge from the slime caused by the evaporation of water by the sun. Having emerged in this environment they moved to dry land whence land animals evolved. In Gen. 1:20 f. we also read that the first living creatures appeared in the waters: then bird life evolved and was immediately followed by "cattle and creeping things and beasts of the earth" (vs. 24). And as Democritus maintained that living things ultimately depended for their procreation on the union of the species, so also we read in Genesis of living things being endowed with the properties of self-propagation (vs. 28; cf. also vs. 22).

Having referred to the creation of higher animals, Anaximander then accounts for the origin of mankind. Theophrastus is reported to have represented Anaximander's views thus:

He says that originally man was born from animals of another species. His reason is that while other animals quickly find food for themselves, man alone requires a lengthy period of suckling. Hence, had he been originally as he is now, he would never have survived.[29]

We are not concerned to inquire what precisely Anaximander meant when he spoke of man descending from another animal or to evaluate the extent to which his views support modern evolutionary doctrines of the origin of man. It is sufficient to note that he regarded man as being so much superior to other animals that he attributed his development to extraordinary circumstances. The author of Genesis 1 had a similar conception of man, for in his scheme man appears only after God had surveyed the rest of his work. Thus in both accounts man is fittingly represented as the climax and crown of creation.

It will then be seen that the pattern of creation discernible in Genesis 1 exhibits many similarities to other cosmogonies of the ancient Near East. Certain general

[24] Burnet, *op. cit.*, p. 66.

[25] Cf. Cornford, *op. cit.*, p. 164.

[26] Burnet, *op. cit.*, pp. 72–73.

[27] See Cornford, *op. cit.*, p. 189.

[28] *Ibid.*, p. 190.

[29] Burnet, *op, cit.*, p. 73.

parallels are observable between this pattern and the cosmogonic passages of *Enūma elish*. With regard to the creation of the physical universe it has special features in common with the cosmogony of Hesiod, while its account of the origin of living creatures approximates closely to the system of Anaximander. The question therefore arises as to whether the author of Genesis 1 conceived of his own cosmogony independently or whether he was to some extent influenced by other modes of thought. In view of the fact that certain other elements in the early chapters of Genesis, such as the Flood and Eden stories, have also their counterparts in Babylonian literature,[30] it is not surprising to learn that parallels obtain between the Hebrew and Babylonian accounts of creation. On the other hand, the suggestion that Genesis 1 reflects certain traits of Hesiod's cosmogony may be regarded with some skepticism, while it may also be claimed that it would be equally difficult to substantiate the thesis that the biblical writer could have been influenced by Anaximander's view on creation.

Yet it is now widely recognised that the Priestly document, of which Genesis 1 is a part, was not composed till about 500 B.C., after which indeed it continued to receive some additions.[31] Following a lengthy analysis of the text, Julian Morgenstern came to the conclusion that two different versions may be discerned in the creation story of Genesis 1.[32] The first, which he called the "divine-fiat" version, consisted of a simple account of creation and was composed by the Priestly school during "the close of the sixth or . . . the beginning of the fifth century B.C." (p. 205). This version was later revised by editors who omitted and altered much of the original story and inserted passages relating to the sabbath in order to represent it "as the first and . . . fundamental institution of religion" (p. 209). Morgenstern calls this the "sabbath" version and thinks that it must have been made in the fourth century B.C. (p. 209), although various insertions must have been made at later periods (p. 212).

It matters little whether the basic creaation story of Genesis 1 was composed in Babylon or in Palestine,[33] as in either case its author would have been influenced by the developments which Israelite thought underwent during the exile. From the sixth century onwards Babylon was the center of an advanced and cosmopolitan culture. Foremost in the commerce of the world of its day, this "city of merchants" (Ezek. 17:4) was the meeting place for the traders and travellers of the Near East. Since the rise of the Neo-Babylonian Empire Babylon had become the most important capital of the Near East and accordingly attracted to its court ambassadors and potentates from all parts of the Orient (cf. e.g., Jer. 29:1–3). The Weidner tablets not only mention that there were people from Ashkelon, Tyre, Byblos, and Arvad in Babylon during the reign of Nebuchadnezzar, but also Egyptians,

[30] Cf. here John Skinner, *Genesis*, ("I.C.C."; Edinburgh, 1910), pp. ix; 45 ff.; 177 f. Discussing the resemblances between the Babylonian and Hebrew accounts of creation S. R. Driver said: "In estimating these similarities, it must further be remembered that they do not stand alone: in the narrative of the Deluge we find traits borrowed unmistakably from a Babylonian source," *The Book of Genesis* ("West. Com.;" 6th ed., 1907), p. 30. So commenting on the biblical account of the Flood, R. H. Pfeiffer remarked: "The story of the Flood in P . . . is another example of the direct or indirect acquaintance which the Priestly authors had with Babylonian writings," *Intro. to the Old Test.* (1941), p. 205.

[31] Cf. R. H. Pfeiffer, *op. cit.*, p. 257; Aage Bentzen, *Intro. to the Old Test.*, II (1949), 69–72.

[32] "The Sources of the Creation Story—Genesis I:1–2:4, *AJSL*, XXXVI (April 1920), 169–212.

[33] Cf. Oesterley and Robinson, *An Intro. to the Books of the Old Test.* (London, 1934), who were of the opinion that "the place of compilation was probably Mesopotamia," p. 62. R. H. Pfeiffer on the other hand regards the Code as "a product of Jerusalem," *op. cit.*, p. 256.

Medes, Persians, Greeks, and Lydians.[34] Herodotus further informs us that there were Greek hirelings in the Egyptian army since the seventh century B.C.,[35] and it is therefore possible that the Egyptians who were in Babylon in Nebuchadrezzar's day may have carried some elements of Greek thought with them. We also know that the Medes visited Miletus before the time of Xenophanes (*ca.* 550 B.C.), because he tells us that during his own day it was common to ask: "Of what country are you . . . and how old were you when the Mede appeared?"[36] Moreover, we have a record that Ugarit, the great commercial and cultural center of the second millennium B.C., was visited by Greeks in the sixth century B.C.,[37] and it is not unlikely that many visitors to the Phoenician coast would take the advantage of extending their travels, along the course of the Euphrates, to Babylon and other centers of Mesopotamia.

Such considerations indicate that there was thus more than one medium by which Greek ideas might become known in Babylon, whence, eventually, they could become embodied in the cosmogony of the Priestly writer. Cornford of course has argued that the cosmogonic scheme discernible in Hesiod's *Theogony* was ultimately of Babylonian origin and has pointed to ancient Ugarit as affording opportunity for the intercourse of thought between the Aegean lands and Mesopotamia.[38] While the substance of this contention seems to be confirmed by recent evidence,[39] the similarity between the cosmogony of P and that of Hesiod suggests that P became acquainted with the views of Hesiod after they had been incorporated in the *Theogony*. And in view of the even closer relationship which subsists between P's account of the creation of living things and that provided by Anaximander it seems that P only became familiar with such a scheme after it had been argued by Anaximander.

Recognition that there are similarities between the Priestly and other Near Eastern accounts of creation does not however necessarily imply that the Hebrew author was entirely dependent on these accounts. The parallelisms which exist between P and *Enūma elish* are not such as would suggest direct borrowing on the part of P from the Babylonian epic. It is now well known that the influence of Babylonia over Western Asia was considerable during the second millennium B.C. The finds at Tell-el-Amarna not only show that the Babylonian language had become the medium of international communication in about 1500 B.C., but also indicate that Babylonian traditions had become common in the West by that time.[40] Such stories about the creation and related themes would thus become adopted by the Canaanite people even before the appearance of the Hebrews, who, on their arrival, would naturally be influenced by ideas which had become part of their cultural heritage. It is however probable that the Hebrews were in possession of some primitive concepts on the origin of life before entering Canaan, for the account of creation which appears in Genesis, chapter 2, is such as would emanate from a desert people.[41] The origin

[34] *Ancient Near Eastern Texts* (1st ed.), p. 308*b*.

[35] Her. ii. 152–53. See also, F. K. Kienitz, *Die politische Geschichte Ägyptens vom 7. bis zum 4. Jahrhundert vor der Zeitwende* (Berlin, 1953), pp. 37–38.

[36] Burnet, *op. cit.*, p. 126.

[37] R. Dussaud, *Topographie historique de la Syrie antique* (Paris, 1927), p. 417.

[38] *Op. cit.*, pp. 239–49.

[39] See E. R. Dodds, note to Cornford's *Principium Sapientiae*, p. 249.

[40] Cf. Heidel, *op. cit.*, pp. 111–12.

[41] It is of interest to observe here that R. H. Pfeiffer assigns the creation story of Genesis 2 to his "S" source which he regards as deriving from Seir in the South, *op. cit.*, pp. 159–60.

of life is conceived of against a background of a waterless, desert waste (vs. 5). Once mist or rain, so precious to the nomad Semite, watered the ground life appeared (vs. 6–7). The existence of heaven and earth and the luminaries were taken for granted. In a society in which the struggle for human survival was so realistic, the existence of man was of primary importance and therefore his appearance is alone emphasized. As yet there was no time for reflection on the question of the origin of the universe or on the problem as to what was the most likely sequence of creation.

Various explanations have been offered to account for the cosmogony as it appears in the present text of Genesis 1. Arguing that a simple but majestic account of creation underlies the present draft of the chapter W. E. Barnes accounted for later alterations by saying: "The answer is perhaps that it (the earlier account) is too magnificent, too prophetic for many minds. The less creative intelligence, the intelligence of the priest, was needed to bring home the truth of Genesis 1 to the mass mind."[42] On the other hand, accounting for the revision of the original "divine-fiat" version of the creation story by later redactors, Julian Morgenstern said: "This revision of the creation story recast it completely and made it accessible to and significant for an entirely different . . . group. . . . It gives a practical application to the story, and brought the conception of the deity, set forth therein, down to the level of the folk-mind and folk intelligence."[43] More recently Professor S. H. Hooke suggested that the creation story of Genesis 1 was composed for liturgical use at the Hebrew New Year Festival. Hence he thinks that while "sections of the **J** account of creation were read by the priests at the New Year Festival, . . . Genesis 1–2:4*a* constituted the liturgy of creation which was chanted by the priests on the same occasion."[44] It may however be doubted if the author or redactor of Genesis 1 was motivated by the desire to simplify an earlier account of creation or that his purpose was to compose a work for liturgical purposes.

The primary object of the author of the Priestly document of the Pentateuch was to give an account of the origin and institutions of the Hebrew people, but he thought that such an account would not be complete without prefacing it by a cosmogony. Obviously the conception of creation represented in Genesis 2 was too primitive for his purpose and so he decided to compose his own cosmogony. It will be observed that, while **P** as a rule is dependent on Deutero-Isaiah for his theology,[45] he does not however follow the prophet on the question of creation. Deutero-Isaiah was not interested in a cosmogony as such, but he had none the less a doctrine of creation and attributed the origin of the universe and all living things to Yahweh (cf. e.g., Isa. 40:21–28; 41:19; 42:5). According to **P** God created the world from existing chaos,[46] but Deutero-Isaiah believed that the creative activity of Yahweh was operative before the appearance of chaotic matter (Isa. 45:18). The postulate of a primeval chaos was however characteristic of many early Near Eastern cosmogonies, and particularly that of the Babylonian, with which in this respect, as we have seen, the **P** ac-

[42] "Who Wrote the First Chapter of Genesis?," *Expositor*, XXII (1921), p. 410.

[43] *Loc. cit.*, p. 209.

[44] *In the Beginning* (1947), p. 36.

[45] Cf. Pfeiffer, *op. cit.*, pp. 194, 258–61.

[46] Cf. here Skinner, *op. cit.*, pp. 7–15. A. Heidel however maintains that "Genesis, chapter 1 . . . predicates a creation out of nothing . . . ," *op. cit.*, p. 76.

count has an obvious similarity. The nature of **P**'s work demanded that he should have a cosmogony, and, as he was a systematic theologian rather than a philosopher or scientist, it was natural for him to adapt to his own use systems of creation which were known in his day. But, although he was not an original thinker, the extent to which he succeeded may be seen from the consideration that, although he seems to have known of at least three cosmogonies, the pattern of creation which he outlines is more ordered and connected than any of them. Thus, his cosmogony is more positive and complete than that of *Enūma elish;* it is less mythical than Hesiod's; while it is more comprehensive than the system devised by Anaximander.

Analyzed in the light of modern science it would doubtless be found wanting in many respects, but it must be remembered that the science of **P** cannot be expected to have been in advance of the age in which he was writing. Again, however composite his system may seem, his ultimate attribution of creation to the effortless commands of God invests his cosmogony with a theological character which acclaims the whole as being infinitely greater than the sum of its parts.

UNIVERSITY COLLEGE OF NORTH WALES
BANGOR, WALES